

DL GenAI - Week-5

L1

Optimizaⁿ in DL - Challenges

$$x \rightarrow \boxed{\text{Network}} \rightarrow y \quad L = (\hat{y} - y)$$

$\hat{y}$

we improve the network with the help of optimizaⁿ algorithms

- Reference $\rightarrow$ dee.ai
- optimizaⁿ algs to train our DNN.
 - $\rightarrow$ updates the model params iteratively.
 - $\rightarrow$ goal is to minimize the loss value on the training dataset.
- why more understanding is reqd for us?
 1. training efficiency $\rightarrow$ performance of optimizaⁿ algo $\propto$ model's training time. You have to save computational time & resources.
Be training prepared for adaptive learning.
 2. model performance $\rightarrow$ HPT is reqd. in a targeted manner.
- goal of optimizaⁿ $\rightarrow$ minimize the objective funcⁿ (training error / empirical risk)
 - $\hookrightarrow$ our focus is to perform well on unseen data (minimize the generalizaⁿ error - true risk)
 - $\hookrightarrow$ this is the final goal.
- True Risk $\rightarrow$ the expected loss on the entire populaⁿ of data. This is smooth. We want to find its true minimum.

- Empirical Risk - The avg. loss on our finite training dataset. It is often noisy & less smoother. This what we minimize.
- Optimizaⁿ → The process of reducing the training error with algs. like SGD, adam.
- Regularizaⁿ → Techniques that control model complexity & reduces generalizaⁿ error.
- Almost all optimizaⁿ problems in DL are non-convex (messy) → extremely complex. like a rugged mountain range.
- 3 major challenges -
 1. local minima → getting stuck in a some valley instead of lowest pt.
 2. saddle pt. → getting stuck on a flat pt. that is min. in 1 direcⁿ but max in another.
 3. vanishing gradient → gradient so small that learning stops effectively.
↳ mostly machines have limited precision.
- Local Minima
 - A pt. x where $f(x)$ is the minimum value over any other pts. in its immediate vicinity.
 - Global minima → x where $f(x)$ is lowest

- Saddle Pt.

→ where all gradients of a funcⁿ vanish ($\nabla f(x) = 0$) but is neither local minima or local maxima.

- Hessian matrix → matrix of second derivatives

↳ local minima → all eigenvalues of Hessian is positive.

↳ saddle pt. → some λ 's are +, some are -.

→ at the zero-gradient pt., the type of depends on this Hessian matrix.

Eg. $f(x, y) = x^2 - y^2$ at $(0, 0) \rightarrow$ gradient is $(0, 0)$
minima w.r.t x .
maxima w.r.t y .

In 2D, gives the shape of a saddle.

- Vanishing gradient

→ when gradient become extremely small, causing the updates to be effectively negligible. Thus, learning stops.

→ you have to play with activaⁿ funcⁿ.

Eg. $f(x) = \tanh(x)$, $f'(x) = 1 - \tanh^2(x)$
 $x = 4$

$f'(x) = 0.0013$ so small

that's why we use ReLU.

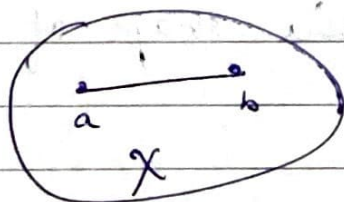
that's why used in CNNs.

when they weak, they weak very good.

E2:

Convex Optimization

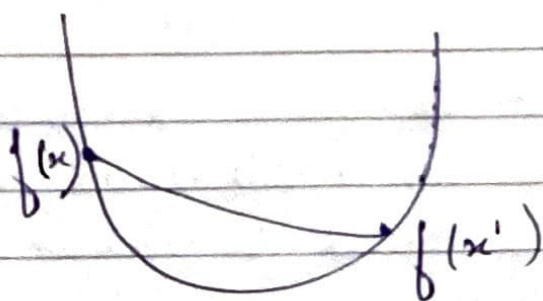
- Reasons to know convexity -
 1. analytical tractability $\rightarrow$ easier to understand
 2. algo. design & testing $\rightarrow$ useful as a sanity check for convex optima.
 3. local properties $\rightarrow$ even in case of non-convex algorithms, local properties are convex.
- A set $\mathcal{X}$ in a vector space is convex if for any 2 pts. $a, b \in \mathcal{X}$, the entire line segment connecting a & b is also in $\mathcal{X}$.



For all $\lambda \in [0, 1]$,
we have
 $\lambda a + (1 - \lambda)b \in \mathcal{X}$
when $a, b \in \mathcal{X}$

- Properties -
 1. intersection of 2 (> or more) convex sets is also convex
 2. not necessarily true for unions.
- Given a convex set $\mathcal{X}$, if funcⁿ $f: \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is convex if for all $x, x' \in \mathcal{X}$ & for all $\lambda \in [0, 1]$

$$\lambda f(x) + (1 - \lambda)f(x') \geq f(\lambda x + (1 - \lambda)x')$$



Eg. $0.5x^2$, $e^{0.5x}$

they are
convex.

but $\cos(\pi x)$ is
not convex.

- Any local minima is also the global minima, for a convex funcⁿ f .
- The second derivative-test
 - $f: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$; f is convex iff. if its second derivative is non-negative $f''(x) \geq 0, \forall x$.
 - In multidim., f is convex iff. Hessian matrix, $H = \nabla^2 f(x)$ is positive semidefinite for all x .
- Jensen's Inequality
 - for a convex funcⁿ f , non-negative wts α_i s.t. $\sum \alpha_i = 1$ & a RV x .

$$\sum_i \alpha_i f(x_i) \geq f\left(\sum_i \alpha_i x_i\right)$$

$$\text{or } E[f(x)] \geq f(E[x])$$

- Convex optimizaⁿ gives good tools to handle constraints efficiently.

Eg. $\min_x f(x)$

subj. to $c_i(x) \leq 0 \quad i=1 \dots n$

f & c_i are convex functions.

- _/_/_
1. Lagrangian $\rightarrow$ converts constrained into unconstrained;
 $\hookrightarrow$ introduces new variables $\alpha_i \geq 0$ called lagrange multipliers.

$$L(x, \alpha_1, \dots, \alpha_n) = f(x) + \sum_{i=1}^n \alpha_i c_i(x)$$

eg. for finding a saddle pt. of L .

$$\max_{\alpha_i \geq 0} \min_x L(x, \alpha)$$

2. Penalty $\rightarrow$ we add a penalty term to the objectives.

$$\min f(x) + \sum_{i=1}^n \alpha_i c_i(x)$$

This is an approximate way to satisfy constraints.

3. Projections $\rightarrow$ take an optimization step & then project the result back to the feasible set.

$$\text{Proj}_X(x) = \arg \min_{x' \in X} \|x - x'\|$$

This finds the closest pt. in the convex set X to the pt. x .

- so, remember, we can never get stuck in the local minima valley.

L3. Gradient descent Algo.

- Taylor Expansion $\rightarrow$ for small displacement ϵ , we can approximate using 1st order Taylor expansion.

$$\text{func}^n \leftarrow f(x + \epsilon) \approx f(x) + \epsilon^T \nabla f(x)$$

$\rightarrow$ funcⁿ at old pt.
 $\leftarrow$ funcⁿ at new pt.
 ϵ rate of Δ (step size)

we move in the direcⁿ where steepness decreases, $\rightarrow$ we make small Δ in that direcⁿ.

$$\nabla f(x) = \nabla f \cdot \epsilon \quad \nabla f = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} \\ \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} \end{bmatrix}$$

$\rightarrow$ to make $f(x + \epsilon)$ as small as possible, we need to make $\epsilon^T \nabla f(x)$ as negative as possible. We try to minimize $\epsilon^T \nabla f(x)$.
 Δf is min, when $\cos \theta = -1$, $\theta = 180^\circ$

$\Delta \vec{x} \leftarrow \nabla f$
 $\rightarrow$ maximum decrease the value in the direcⁿ opp. to the gradient

$$\boxed{\epsilon = -\eta \nabla f(x)}$$

$\eta > 0$, small +ve scalar.
 $\hookrightarrow$ learning rate

- _/_/_
- GD Theorem $\rightarrow$ start with initial value x_0 , iteratively update the params.

$$x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - \eta \nabla f(x_t)$$

we repeat it until a stopping condiⁿ

eg. $f(x) = x^2$ obj. $\Rightarrow x^2$

$$f'(x) = 2x$$

Update rule $\Rightarrow x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - \eta (2x_t)$

start,

$x = 10$, with $\eta = 0.2$

$$x_1 = x_0 - \eta (2x_0)$$

$$= 10 - 0.2 (20) = 10 - 4 = 6$$

$$x_2 = 6 - 0.2 (12) = 6 - 2.4 = 3.6$$

$\vdots$

progress is very slow, with $\eta = 0.2$
if η is too large, then, it will overshoot the minimum.

$\rightarrow$ HPT $\rightarrow$ expt. to get the best result.

eg. $f(x) = x_1^2 + 2x_2^2$

$$\nabla f(x) = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_1} \\ \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_2} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 2x_1 \\ 4x_2 \end{bmatrix}$$

difficult to get 1 single good η .

- gradient use 1st order info. Can we use second order info?

Newton's method

$$f(x + \epsilon) \approx f(x) + \epsilon^T \nabla f(x) + \frac{1}{2} \epsilon^T H \epsilon$$

$H = \nabla^2 f(x)$ ↳ this is expensive $O(n^3)$

↳ hessian matrix of second derivatives

using second-order Taylor expansion.

$$\nabla f(x) + H \epsilon = 0$$

$$\Rightarrow \boxed{\epsilon = -H^{-1} \nabla f(x)}$$

to find the minima of this quadratic approximation

- this helps in fast convergence. For quadratic ones, it converges in exactly 1 step.
- if funcⁿ is not convex, H has -ve eigenvalues. It starts to move towards maxima.

- Batch GD (Gradient descent)

↳ the obj. funcⁿ is an avg. over a training dataset of n eqs. $f(x) = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n f_i(x)$

↳ the true or batch gradient is also an avg. 1 epoch

→ to get this, you have to do a full pass over the entire training dataset.

→ 1 single gradient update is $O(n)$. We shouldn't do this.

- SGD (Stochastic gradient descent)

→ instead of calculating the gradient over the entire dataset, we just take 1 random eq. & compute the gradient for it.

→ at each iteration $t \rightarrow$

1. uniformly sample an index i

2. compute $SG \rightarrow \nabla f_{i_t}(x_t)$

3. update

$$x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - \eta \nabla f_{i_t}(x_t)$$

→ key advantages:

1. cost: $O(n) \rightarrow O(1)$

2. unbiased estimate

- There are some key obs.

→ GD path $\rightarrow$ smooth deterministic, directly towards min.

→ SGD path $\rightarrow$ noisy, stochastic & rough estimates

↳ we have to use some η scheduler.

- so, $\therefore$ we can use Minibatch SGD $\rightarrow$ we use small batch of eqs. It is a std. for training the deep neural networks.

//_

- why mini batch SGD works?

→ SGD → element-by-element

→ MiniBatch SGD → block by block

→ GD → full matrix

this can be handled by today's
GPUs → computational efficiency.
uses vectorization

- Minibatch SGD

1. $B_t \subset \{1, \dots, n\}$ of size b

$$2. \nabla f_{B_t}(x_t) = \frac{1}{b} \sum_{i \in B_t} \nabla f_i(x_t)$$

$$3. x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - \eta \nabla f_{B_t}(x_t)$$

→ computational & statistical efficiency.

L4 Accelerating Gradient Descent

- why use schedule η ?

→ magnitude → η too large, it diverges; Too small, it converges slowly.

→ decay → η should decay over time.

→ warmup → "random initialization" so starting steps are slow.

- common schedules.

→ piecewise const. → $\eta(t) = \eta_i$ if $t_i \leq t < t_{i+1}$

- exponential decay $\Rightarrow \eta(t) = \eta_0 \cdot e^{-\lambda t}$
- polynomial $\Rightarrow \eta(t) = \eta_0 (\beta t + 1)^{-\alpha}$
- inverse time $\Rightarrow \eta(t) = \frac{\eta_0}{(1 + kt)}$

→ cosine annealing $\Rightarrow$

$$\eta(t) = \eta_{\min} + \frac{1}{2} (\eta_{\max} - \eta_{\min}) \left(1 + \cos\left(\frac{t}{T_{\max}} \pi\right)\right)$$

- GD is currently struggling -

→ gradient sometime much larger in some dir^{ns}

→ $\eta \uparrow$, too much divergence for some var.

→ $\eta \downarrow$; painfully slow convergence.

- Momentum

→ down the hill, we get momentum, oscillat^{ns} tend to cancel out.

→ if flat reg., it consistent acc.

vanilla GD $\Rightarrow w \leftarrow w - \eta v$ $\vec{v} = \nabla J$

$g_t = \nabla f(x_t)$ $\rightarrow$ prev. velocity
 $v_t \leftarrow \beta v_{t-1} + g_t$ $\rightarrow$ current gradient
 this accumulates the velocity
 $x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - \eta v_t$ $\rightarrow$ update with velocity

v_t , can be written as $\rightarrow$

$$v_t = \sum_{\tau=0}^t \beta^{t-\tau} g_{\tau}$$

$\rightarrow$ exponentially gives imp. to recent gradients.

- Adagrad (Adaptive Gradients)

→ η over time ↓ for all params. Eg. LLM train, common words req. frequent updates, while rare words receive very few updates.

→ ∴, we need a mechanism of per-parameter learning rate. 1st case should have higher η & 2nd case should have lower η .

→ Adagrad adapts the η for each param. based on the history of its gradients. element-wise multiplication

$$S_t \leftarrow S_{t-1} + g_t \odot g_t$$

accumulates squared gradient, element-wise

$$x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - \frac{\eta}{\sqrt{S_t} + \epsilon} \odot g_t$$

update with scale gradient
leads to automatic scheduling

→ it acts as a pre-conditioner

→ the accumulator $S_t \uparrow$. The η for all params will approach 0, stopping training prematurely.

- RMS Prop.

→ for adagrad, sq. gradients are stored over entire history

→ in RMS Prop, we use exponentially weighted moving avg, & window.

$$S_t \leftarrow \gamma S_{t-1} + (1 - \gamma)(g_t \odot g_t)$$

$$x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - \frac{\eta}{\sqrt{s_t} + \epsilon} \odot g_t$$

RMSProp $\Rightarrow$ Adagrad + "forgetting" mechanism

- Adadelta

$\rightarrow$ remove global η . Adapts η with past parameter updates.

$\rightarrow$ 2 variables $\rightarrow s_t, \Delta x_t$

$\rightarrow$ algo. ($\rho \rightarrow$ decay rate)

$$1. s_t \leftarrow \rho s_{t-1} + (1 - \rho)(g_t \odot g_t)$$

$$2. g_t' = \left(\frac{\sqrt{\Delta x_{t-1} + \epsilon}}{\sqrt{s_t + \epsilon}} \right) \odot g_t \quad \rightarrow \text{this works as } \eta$$

$$3. \Delta x_t \leftarrow \rho \Delta x_{t-1} + (1 - \rho)(g_t' \odot g_t')$$

$$4. x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - g_t'$$

- Adam (Momentum + RMS Prop)

$\rightarrow$ keep track of past gradients and MA of past squared gradients.

$\rightarrow$ algo.

$$1. v_t \leftarrow \beta_1 v_{t-1} + (1 - \beta_1) g_t$$

$$2. s_t \leftarrow \beta_2 s_{t-1} + (1 - \beta_2)(g_t \odot g_t)$$

3. correct the bias

$$\hat{v}_t = \frac{v_t}{1 - \beta_1^t}$$

$$\hat{s}_t = \frac{s_t}{1 - \beta_2^t}$$

$$4. \quad x_{t+1} \leftarrow x_t - \eta \frac{\hat{v}_t}{\sqrt{\hat{S}_t} + \epsilon}$$

→ $\beta_1 = 0.9, \beta_2 = 0.999, \eta = 0.001$ (common values)

LS GD Demo

- code walkthroughs → on small datasets, not very realistic.
- we are applying on Linear Regression on a synthetic dataset

$$y = wx + b + \text{noise}$$

↙ feature
 ↘ parameters

→ $N \sim (y, \text{std})$

→ expectⁿ of the algo. is the value of w & b .
 → after that we will try to improve it.

$$w = w - \eta \frac{\partial J}{\partial w}$$

$$b = b - \eta \frac{\partial J}{\partial b}$$

→ we will try to solve this

$$J^i = (\hat{y}^i - y^i)^2 \rightarrow \hat{y}(b)$$

$$\frac{\partial J^i}{\partial b} = \frac{\partial J^i}{\partial \hat{y}} \frac{\partial \hat{y}}{\partial b} = 2(\hat{y}^i - y^i)$$

$$\left[\frac{\partial J}{\partial b} = \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n (\hat{y}^i - y^i) \right]$$

$$\left[\frac{\partial J}{\partial w} = \frac{2}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n (\hat{y}^i - y^i) x^i \right]$$

- generate the synthetic dataset for LR.
- plot $\hat{y}$, y & residuals.
- define n to compute the loss

$$\frac{\sum (y - \text{predictions})^2}{n}$$

- define n to compute the gradients
- define the algorithm $\rightarrow$ BGD (Batch Gradient Descent)
 - $\rightarrow$ algorithm $\rightarrow$ SGD, mini-batch SGD
- these results are not final, we have to HPT, then, you will get good results.
 - $\rightarrow$ (HPT optimisaⁿ)
- batch-size also becomes the HP.

CG Accelerating GD - Demo.

- momentum, RMSProp, Adagrad, Adam
 - $\rightarrow$ we will experiment using these techniques.

- definition of vanilla gradient descent.

$$\theta_{t+1} = \theta_t - \alpha \nabla_{\theta} J(\theta_t) \rightarrow \text{update rule.}$$

- define the momentum-based optimizaⁿ.
- NAG $\rightarrow$ Nesterov Accelerated Gradient

$$u_t = \beta u_{t-1} + \nabla_\theta J(\theta_t - \alpha \beta u_{t-1})$$

$$\theta_{t+1} = \theta_t - \alpha v_t$$

helps in smoothening, it anticipates where it is going.

- define the adaptive learning rate methods
 - adagrad
 - RMSProp (Root Mean Square Propagation)
 - Adadelta
- finally, define the Adam family of optimizers.
 - Adam (Adaptive Moment Estimation)
 - AdamW (Adam with decoupled weight decay)
L2 Regularization
 - ↳ $g_t = \nabla_{\theta} J(\theta_t) + \lambda \theta_t$
- finally test these optimizers & plot these functions on the toy problems

$$\hookrightarrow g_t = \nabla_{\theta} J(\theta_t) + \lambda \theta_t \quad \text{L2 Regularization}$$

- finally test these optimizers & plot these functions on the toy problems

Adam $\geq$ RMS Prop $\geq$ Momentum / NAG $\geq$ AdaDelta $\geq$ AdaGrad $\checkmark$
Vanilla GD

General Hierarchy